

The Deutsch-Jozsa Algorithm



The Deutsch-Jozsa Algorithm (1992)

- Solves a generalization of the problem solved by the Deutsch's algorithm, for functions acting on more than one qubit
- We are given an unknown function

$$f: \{0,1\}^n \rightarrow \{0,1\}$$

that is either **constant** or **balanced**

- A function f is **balanced** if it takes the value 0 on half of the inputs $x \in \{0,1\}^n$, and the value 1 for the other half

$$|\{x \in \{0,1\}^n \mid f(x) = 0\}| = |\{x \in \{0,1\}^n \mid f(x) = 1\}| = 2^{n-1}$$

THE DEUTSCH-JOZSA PROBLEM

INPUT: A black-box (oracle) for computing an unknown function

$$f: \{0,1\}^n \rightarrow \{0,1\}$$

that is either **constant** or **balanced**

PROBLEM: determine whether f is **constant** or **balanced**

Exact classical solution

- In the worst case we cannot decide with certainty whether f is constant or balanced with less than $2^{n-1} + 1$ queries

BEST CASE SCENARIO

the first 2 queries have different answers ($\rightarrow f$ is balanced)

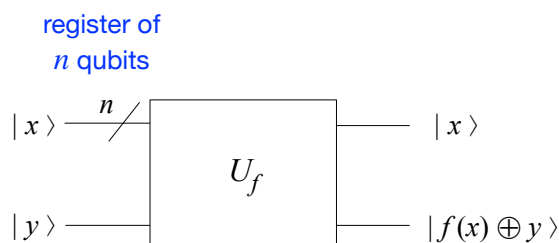
WORST CASE SCENARIO

same answer for 2^{n-1} queries - we need one more before telling whether f is constant or balanced

Quantum solution

- Takes advantage of quantum parallelism and quantum interference
- Determines whether f is constant or balanced making only 1 query to a quantum version of a reversible circuit for f

$\rightarrow$ quantum oracle



$$|x\rangle = |x_0 x_1 \dots x_{n-1}\rangle$$

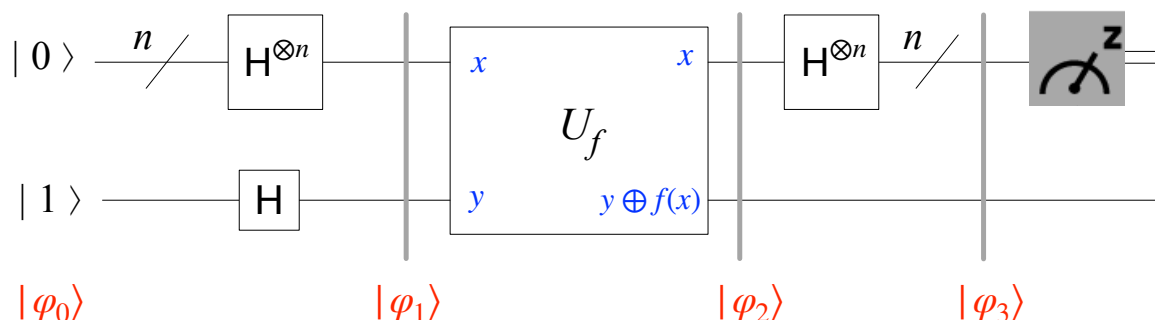
$\underbrace{\hspace{10em}}_{n \text{ qubits}}$

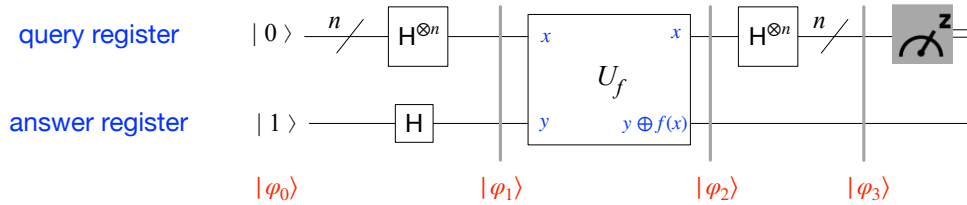
$|y\rangle$ one qubit

$$f: \{0,1\}^n \rightarrow \{0,1\}$$

$f(x)$ is one bit, so we can compute $f(x) \oplus y$

We will solve the problem by entering a superposition of all 2^n possible input states





$$|\varphi_0\rangle = |0\rangle^{\otimes n} |1\rangle$$

query register: n qubits, all prepared in the $|0\rangle$ state

answer register: $|1\rangle$

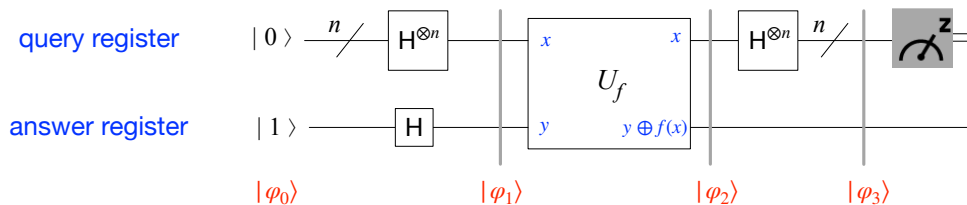
$$|\varphi_1\rangle = (H^{\otimes n} \otimes H) |\varphi_0\rangle = (H^{\otimes n} \otimes H) |0\rangle^{\otimes n} |1\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} |x\rangle |-\rangle$$

query register: uniform superposition of all configurations of n qubits

answer register: uniform superposition of $|0\rangle$ and $|1\rangle$

$$|\varphi_2\rangle = U_f |\varphi_1\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} U_f \left(\sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} |x\rangle |-\rangle \right) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} |x\rangle |-\rangle$$

The result of the query, $f(x)$, is now stored in the amplitude of the qubit superposition state



We now apply the Hadamard matrix $H^{\otimes n}$ on the query register to interfere all terms in the superposition

$$|\varphi_3\rangle = (H^{\otimes n} \otimes I) |\varphi_2\rangle = (H^{\otimes n} \otimes I) \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} |x\rangle |-\rangle$$

We need to understand the effect of $H^{\otimes n}$ on a computational basis state

$$|x\rangle = |x_0 x_1 \dots x_{n-1}\rangle$$

Effect of H on a single qubit $|x_i\rangle$

$$H|x_i\rangle = \frac{|0\rangle + (-1)^{x_i}|1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \sum_{z_i \in \{0,1\}} (-1)^{x_i z_i} |z_i\rangle = \begin{cases} \frac{|0\rangle + |1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} & x_i = 0 \\ \frac{|0\rangle - |1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} & x_i = 1 \end{cases}$$

Effect of $H^{\otimes n}$ on $|x\rangle = |x_0 x_1 \dots x_{n-1}\rangle$

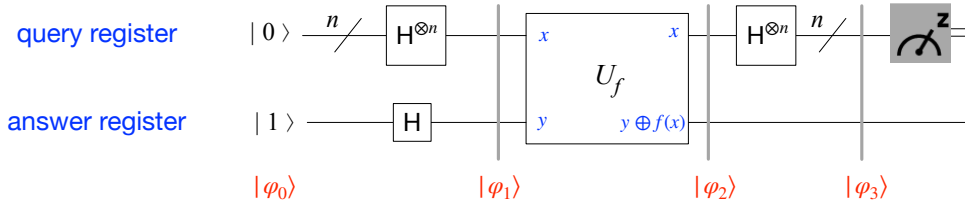
Let $|x\rangle = |x_0 x_1 \dots x_{n-1}\rangle$ denote a computational basis state on n qubits, i.e., $x \in \{0,1\}^n$ and each $x_i \in \{0,1\}$ denotes a particular bit value. Then

$$H^{\otimes n} |x\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x \cdot z} |z\rangle$$

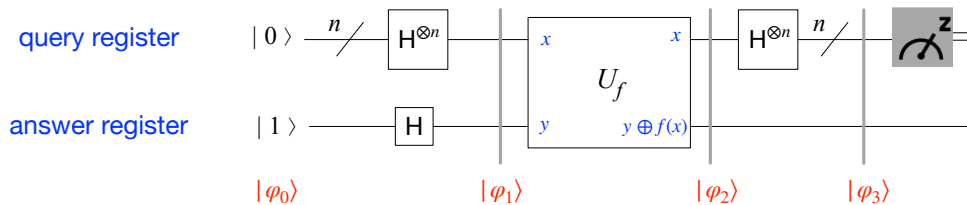
where the dot product $x \cdot z$ denote the inner product modulo two between $x, z \in \{0,1\}^n$

$$x \cdot z = x_0 z_0 \oplus x_1 z_1 \oplus \dots \oplus x_{n-1} z_{n-1} \in \{0,1\}$$

$$\begin{aligned} H^{\otimes n} |x_0 x_1 \dots x_{n-1}\rangle &= H |x_0\rangle H |x_1\rangle \dots H |x_{n-1}\rangle \\ &= \left(\frac{|0\rangle + (-1)^{x_0} |1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} \right) \left(\frac{|0\rangle + (-1)^{x_1} |1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} \right) \dots \left(\frac{|0\rangle + (-1)^{x_{n-1}} |1\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \left(\sum_{z_0 \in \{0,1\}} (-1)^{x_0 \cdot z_0} |z_0\rangle \right) \left(\sum_{z_1 \in \{0,1\}} (-1)^{x_1 \cdot z_1} |z_1\rangle \right) \dots \left(\sum_{z_{n-1} \in \{0,1\}} (-1)^{x_{n-1} \cdot z_{n-1}} |z_{n-1}\rangle \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z_0 \in \{0,1\}} \sum_{z_1 \in \{0,1\}} \dots \sum_{z_{n-1} \in \{0,1\}} (-1)^{x_0 \cdot z_0} (-1)^{x_1 \cdot z_1} \dots (-1)^{x_{n-1} \cdot z_{n-1}} |z_0\rangle |z_1\rangle \dots |z_{n-1}\rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x_0 \cdot z_0 + x_1 \cdot z_1 + \dots + x_{n-1} \cdot z_{n-1}} |z\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x_0 \cdot z_0 \oplus x_1 \cdot z_1 \oplus \dots \oplus x_{n-1} \cdot z_{n-1}} |z\rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x \cdot z} |z\rangle \end{aligned}$$



$$\begin{aligned} | \varphi_3 \rangle &= (H^{\otimes n} \otimes I) | \varphi_2 \rangle = (H^{\otimes n} \otimes I) \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} |x\rangle |-\rangle \\ &= H^{\otimes n} \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} |x\rangle \right) I |-\rangle = \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} H^{\otimes n} |x\rangle \right) |-\rangle \\ &= \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x \cdot z} |z\rangle \right) |-\rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} \left(\sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x) + x \cdot z} |z\rangle \right) |-\rangle \end{aligned}$$



$$| \varphi_3 \rangle = \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{z \in \{0,1\}^n} \left(\sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x) + x \cdot z} | z \rangle \right) | - \rangle$$

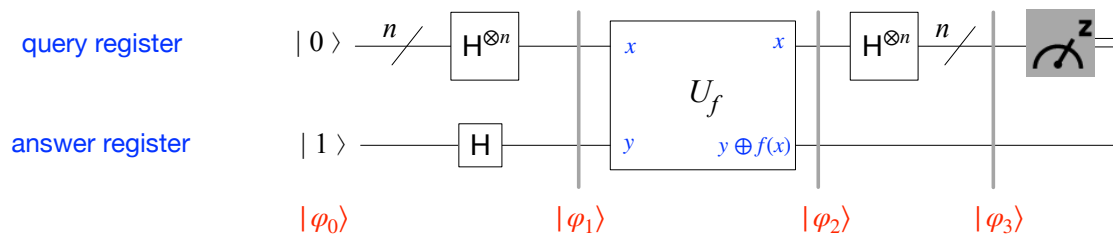
Now, let us compute the amplitude of the state $| z \rangle = | 00 \dots 0 \rangle = | 0 \rangle^{\otimes n}$

$$\frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} \begin{cases} \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^1 = -1 & f \text{ constant and equal to 1} \\ \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^0 = 1 & f \text{ constant and equal to 0} \\ 0 & f \text{ balanced (positive and negative contributions cancel)} \end{cases}$$

Amplitude of the state $| z \rangle = | 00 \dots 0 \rangle = | 0 \rangle^{\otimes n}$

$$\frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{f(x)} \begin{cases} \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{-1} = -1 & f \text{ constant and equal to 1} \\ \frac{1}{2^n} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^0 = 1 & f \text{ constant and equal to 0} \\ 0 & f \text{ balanced} \end{cases}$$

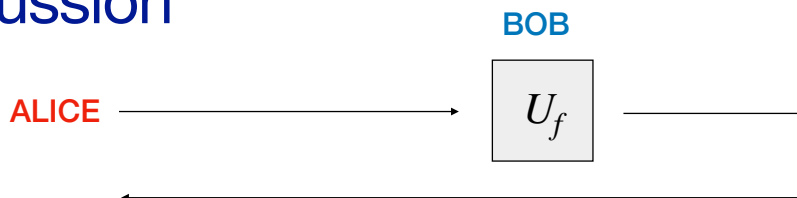
- If f is **constant**, the amplitude of $| 0 \rangle^{\otimes n}$ is ± 1
and the amplitudes of all other states must be 0, since $| \varphi_3 \rangle$ is a unitary vector
➡ A measurement is certain to return all 0s, i.e., the binary string 000...0
- If f is **balanced**, positive and negative amplitudes cancel, and the overall amplitude of $| 0 \rangle^{\otimes n}$ becomes 0
➡ A measurement is certain NOT to return all 0s
we measure a result other than 0 on at least one qubit



To determine with certainty whether f is **constant** or **balanced**, the query register is measured:

- if the result of the measurement is all 0, then f is **constant**
- otherwise, if we measure at least one 1, f is **balanced**

Discussion



Imagine the oracle U_f is held by Bob, spatially separated from Alice, who is trying to determine whether f is constant or balanced

CLASSICALLY Alice transmits $2^{n-1} + 1$ messages, each of size n bits
Bob replies to each message with one bit

QUANTUMLY The Deutsch-Jozsa algorithm requires only the transmission of a single message of $n + 1$ qubits ($|0\rangle^{\otimes n} |1\rangle$) by Alice
Bob replies with a n qubits message



EXPONENTIAL REDUCTION IN THE AMOUNT OF INFORMATION TRANSFER REQUIRED TO SOLVE AN INSTANCE OF THE PROBLEM

- Deutsch's algorithm was the first algorithm that proved a quantum advantage: a reduction in query complexity compared to the classical one
- The Deutsch-Jozsa algorithm generalizes Deutsch's algorithm, revealing the possibility of exponential speed-ups using quantum computers

HOWEVER

- the problem is not an important one
- it has no known applications
- using a probabilistic classical computer, it is possible to quickly determine with high probability whether f is constant or balanced

CLASSICAL RANDOMIZED ALGORITHM

→ Repeat k times (for k a parameter to be chosen as needed)

- pick $x \in \{0,1\}^n$ uniformly at random
- call U_f to evaluate $f(x)$
- if $f(x)$ differs from any previous query answer, halt and output **BALANCED**

→ Halt and output **CONSTANT**

ONE-SIDE ERROR ALGORITHM

The first output (BALANCED) is always correct

The second output (CONSTANT) can be wrong

Suppose f is balanced

- each random value $f(x)$ has probability $1/2$ to be 0 or 1
- the probability that k random values are all 0 or all 1 is

$$2 \frac{1}{2^k} = \frac{1}{2^{k-1}}$$

- thus the probability of declaring that a balanced function is constant is

$$\frac{1}{2^{k-1}}$$

- For any $\varepsilon > 0$, we can guarantee an error probability upper bounded by ε if the number of queries k is s.t.

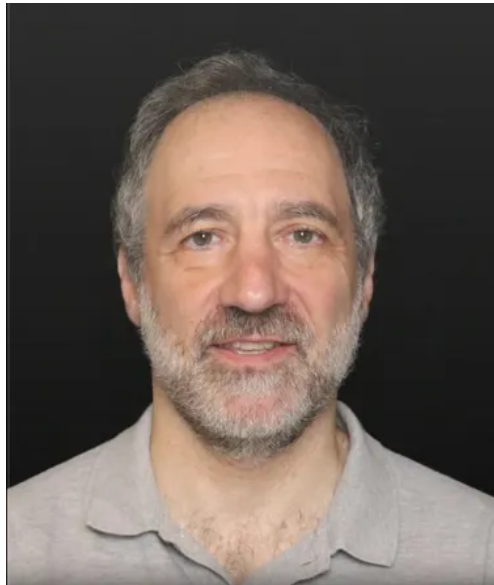
$$k \geq \left\lceil \log \frac{1}{\varepsilon} \right\rceil$$

- If we allow any level of error in the result, we lose the exponential separation between classical and quantum query complexity
- Exactly 0-error scenario in computation is unrealistic, we should always accept some (small) level of error
- There are other black-box problems for which an exponential separation exists between classical and quantum query complexity, even in presence of errors

$\Rightarrow$ SIMON'S QUANTUM ALGORITHM (1994)

- Simon's research inspired Peter Shor, who then designed the polynomial time quantum algorithm for factorization

Simon's Quantum Algorithm



Simon's Algorithm (1994)

First quantum algorithm providing an **exponential speed-up over any classical algorithm, including probabilistic ones**

➡ It shows that **quantum computers are provably exponentially more efficient (in terms of number of queries) than bounded-error randomized classical algorithms**

It was the main inspiration for Shor's polynomial time quantum algorithm for factorization

SIMON'S PROBLEM

INPUT: A black-box (oracle) for computing a function

$$f: \{0,1\}^n \rightarrow \{0,1\}^n$$

with the property that **there exists an unknown nonzero string $s \in \{0,1\}^n$ s.t.**

$$\forall x, y \in \{0,1\}^n \quad f(x) = f(y) \iff y = x \text{ or } y = x \oplus s$$

PROBLEM: **determine the secret string s** by making queries to f (as few as possible)

$\oplus$ denotes bitwise addition module two (i.e., bitwise XOR)

We will treat the domain $\{0,1\}^n$ as the **vector space $\mathbb{Z}_2^n$** over $\mathbb{Z}_2$, which consists of **binary vectors of n components**

The vector sum is the bitwise XOR, or modulo 2 sum $\oplus$

EXAMPLE

$$n = 4$$

$$\begin{array}{lcl} x \in \{0,1\}^4 = 1001 & & y = x \oplus s = 0101 \in \{0,1\}^4 \\ s \in \{0,1\}^4 = 1100 & & \end{array}$$

$$\text{If } y = x \oplus s, \text{ then } s = x \oplus y \text{ and } x = y \oplus s$$

Functions f with Simon's property are **two-to-one functions**

- there are exactly two distinct inputs which produce the same output

$$f(x) = f(y) \iff y = x \oplus s$$

x and $y = x \oplus s$ produce the same output

x and $y = x \oplus s$ are different inputs since $s \neq 0^n$

A function f with Simon's property can be seen as a **periodic function**, with **period s**

$$\forall x \in \{0,1\}^n, f(x) = f(x \oplus s)$$

Simon's problem: given a function f , find its period s

Example

$n = 3$

x	$f(x)$
000	101
001	010
010	000
011	110
100	000
101	110
110	101
111	010

$f(000) = f(110) = f(000 \oplus 110) = 101$
 $000 \oplus 110 = 110$

$f(001) = f(111) = f(001 \oplus 110) = 010$
 $001 \oplus 111 = 110$

$f(010) = f(100) = f(010 \oplus 110) = 000$
 $010 \oplus 100 = 110$

$f(011) = f(101) = f(011 \oplus 110) = 110$
 $011 \oplus 101 = 110$

There are exactly **two inputs** which produce the same output.

These two inputs must be related:

by flipping the bits of one input at all locations where the secret string s has a 1, we obtain the other input

Classical query complexity

We can find the period s by finding a “collision pair” of inputs x and y such that

$$f(x) = f(y)$$

Indeed, the Simon’s property implies

$$f(x) = f(y) \iff x = y \oplus s \iff s = x \oplus y$$

How many queries does it take to find a collision pair?

There is a classical randomized algorithm that solves Simon’s problem with

$O(\sqrt{2^n})$ queries

The algorithm is based on the “Birthday paradox”

An algorithm for Simon's problem

[Ronald de Wolf, *Quantum Computing: Lecture Notes*]

Classical randomized algorithm that solves Simon's problem using $O(\sqrt{2^n})$ queries

The algorithm makes t randomly chosen distinct queries

$$f(x_i), \quad x_i \in \{0,1\}^n, \quad 1 \leq i \leq t$$

If there is a collision among the queries, i.e., $f(x_i) = f(x_j)$ for some $x_i \neq x_j$ we output $s = x_i \oplus x_j$

In a sequence of t distinct queries there are

$$\binom{t}{2} = \frac{t(t-1)}{2} \approx \frac{t^2}{2}$$

pairs that could be a collision.

The probability for a fixed pair to form a collision is $\frac{1}{2^n - 1}$

since after one query on an input x_i , there is only one other input $x_j \neq x_i$ s.t. $f(x_i) = f(x_j)$

An algorithm for Simon's problem

By linearity of expectation, the expected number of collisions in our sequence will be roughly

$$\frac{\binom{t}{2}}{2^n - 1} \approx \frac{t^2}{2^{n+1}}$$

If we choose $t = \sqrt{2^{n+1}}$, we expect to have roughly one collision in our sequence, which is enough to find s

OBSERVATION

An expected value of 1 collision does not mean that we will have at least one collision *with high probability*, but a slightly more involved calculation shows that this latter statement is true

Lower bound

Simon proved that any **classical randomized algorithm** that finds s with high probability needs to make $\Omega(\sqrt{2^n})$ queries, so the above classical algorithm is essentially optimal.

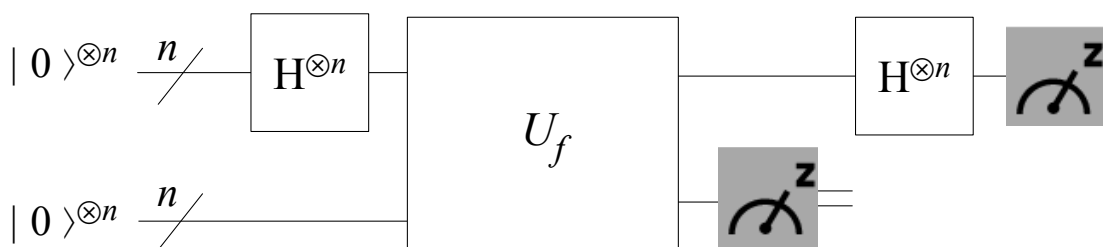
Simon's quantum algorithm solves this problem in polynomial time, performing an optimal $O(n)$ queries

First proven **exponential separation** between quantum algorithms and classical bounded-error algorithms (with respect to query complexity)

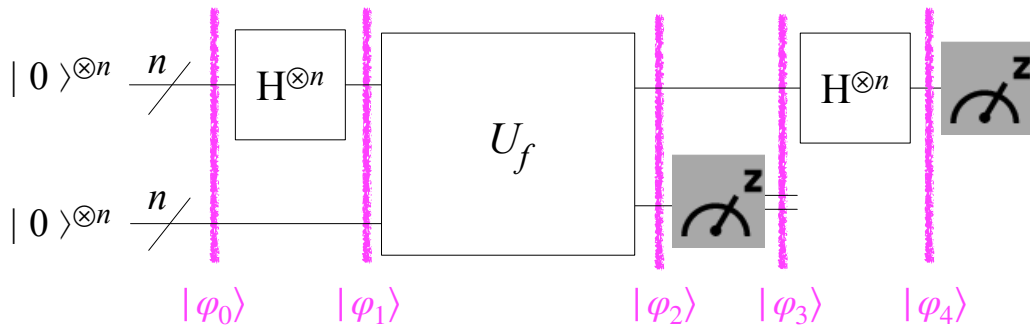
Simon's algorithm

Simon's algorithm is an hybrid quantum-classical algorithm, with two main steps

1. Run a quantum circuit $O(n)$ times



2. Perform a classical postprocessing on the output, efficiently in n , to determine the secret period s ,



We start with two n -qubit registers, in the zero state

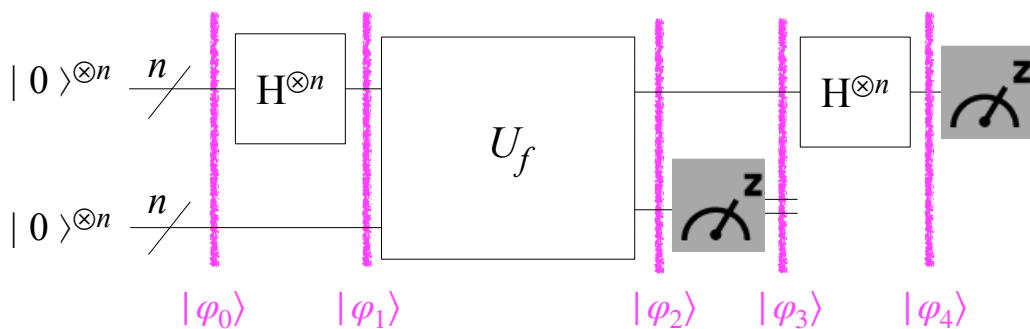
$$|\varphi_0\rangle = |0\rangle^{\otimes n} |0\rangle^{\otimes n}$$

We apply Hadamard gates on all qubits in the top register (Query register)

$$|\varphi_1\rangle = |+\rangle^{\otimes n} |0\rangle^{\otimes n} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} |x\rangle |0\rangle^{\otimes n}$$

We then make a query, applying the oracle U_f

$$|\varphi_2\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} |x\rangle |f(x)\rangle$$



The **second register is measured**, and this measurement has an effect on the first register, since the two registers are entangled (this measurement is actually not necessary, but facilitates the analysis)

$$|\varphi_2\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^n} |x\rangle |f(x)\rangle \xrightarrow{I^{\otimes n} \otimes \text{Measurement}} |\varphi_3\rangle$$

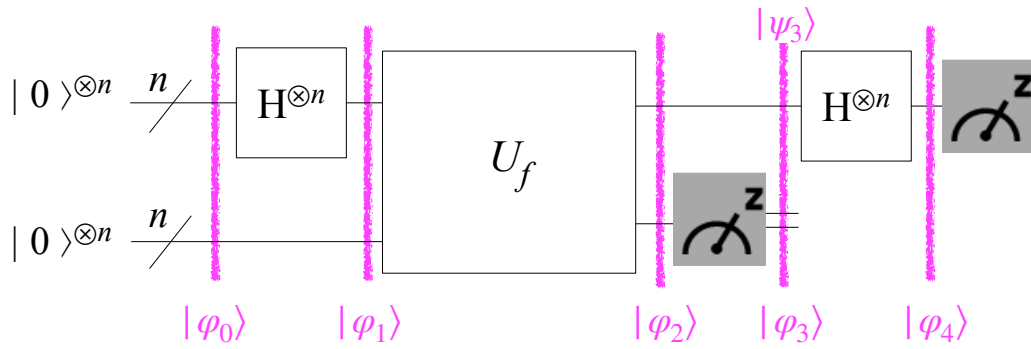
The **measurement outcome** will be particular value of the function, e.g., **some value** $w \in \{0,1\}^n$

Because of Simon's property, **there are exactly two inputs that produce the output** w , i.e.,

$$z \text{ and } z \oplus s \text{ such that } f(z) = f(z \oplus s) = w$$

Thus, the state of the first register after measuring the second collapses to an equal superposition of the two inputs having value w

$$|\varphi_3\rangle = \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} |z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} |z \oplus s\rangle \right) |w\rangle$$



We will now ignore the second register, and focus only on the first

$$|\varphi_3\rangle = \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z \oplus s\rangle \right) |w\rangle \quad |\psi_3\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z \oplus s\rangle$$

The next step is to isolate the information about the period s that is stored in the first register. This can be done applying the Hadamard transform again

$$|\varphi_4\rangle = H^{\otimes n} |\psi_3\rangle = H^{\otimes n} \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z \oplus s\rangle \right)$$

Recall that the Hadamard transform on a computational basis state $|x\rangle$ may be defined using the bitwise dot product as

$$H^{\otimes n} |x\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^n}} \sum_{y \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{x \cdot y} |y\rangle$$

where $x \cdot y = x_0 y_0 \oplus x_1 y_1 \oplus \dots \oplus x_{n-1} y_{n-1} \in \{0,1\}$

$$\begin{aligned} |\varphi_4\rangle &= H^{\otimes n} \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|z \oplus s\rangle \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} H^{\otimes n} |z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} H^{\otimes n} |z \oplus s\rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n+1}}} \left(\sum_{y \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{z \cdot y} |y\rangle + \sum_{y \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{(z \oplus s) \cdot y} |y\rangle \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n+1}}} \sum_{y \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{z \cdot y} (1 + (-1)^{s \cdot y}) |y\rangle \end{aligned}$$

Since

$$1 + (-1)^{s \cdot y} = \begin{cases} 2 & s \cdot y = 0 \\ 0 & s \cdot y = 1 \end{cases}$$

the state

$$|\varphi_4\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n+1}}} \sum_{y \in \{0,1\}^n} (-1)^{z \cdot y} (1 + (-1)^{s \cdot y}) |y\rangle$$

is such that $|y\rangle$ has nonzero amplitude if and only if $s \cdot y = 0$ (modulo 2)

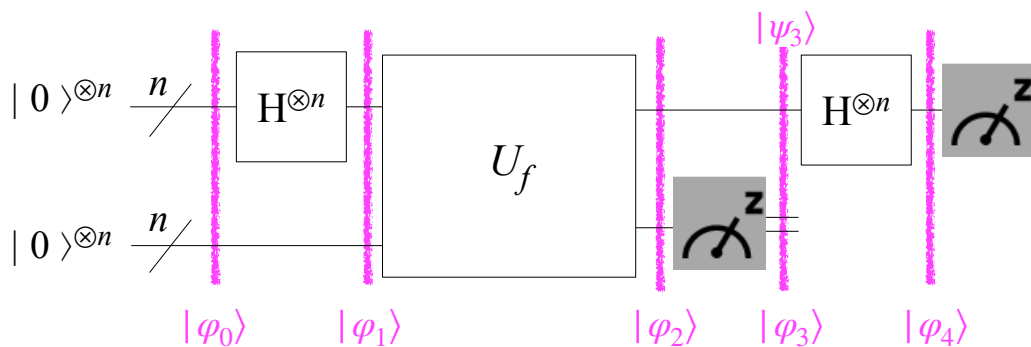
In particular,

- the amplitude associated to any value y such that $s \cdot y = 1$ is equal to 0
- the amplitude associated to any value y such that $s \cdot y = 0$ is equal to

$$\pm \frac{2}{\sqrt{2^{n+1}}} = \pm \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n-1}}}$$

Thus, $|\varphi_4\rangle$ is actually a **uniform superposition of computational basis states whose dot product with the unknown period s is 0**

$$|\varphi_4\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n-1}}} \sum_{\substack{y \in \{0,1\}^n \\ s \cdot y = 0}} (-1)^{z \cdot y} |y\rangle$$



$$|\varphi_4\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2^{n-1}}} \sum_{\substack{y \in \{0,1\}^n \\ s \cdot y = 0}} (-1)^{z \cdot y} |y\rangle$$

The last step consists in a **measurement of the first register**

The **outcome** of such measurement is a **uniformly random bit string $y \in \{0,1\}^n$** , whose dot product (i.e., inner product modulo 2) with the period s is 0

This does not tell us s exactly, but it tells us “something about s ”: a linear equation whose unknowns are the bits of s

$$s \cdot y = 0 \longrightarrow s_0 y_0 \oplus s_1 y_1 \oplus \dots \oplus s_{n-1} y_{n-1} = 0$$

We repeat Simon's algorithm until we have obtained a system of $n - 1$ independent linear equations involving s , each corresponding to an outcome $y \in \{0,1\}^n$

Recall that y can be treated as a vector of the vector space $\mathbb{Z}_2^n$

The linear system can be solved efficiently by a classical algorithm, e.g., Gaussian elimination modulo 2

This is the second step of Simon's algorithm, the classical post-processing that can be implemented with a classical circuit of size roughly $O(n^3)$

The solutions of the linear system will be 0^n and s , the solution of Simon's problem

We must run the quantum circuit $O(n)$ times since we need to obtain $n - 1$ linear independent equations to solve the system, that is, $n - 1$ linear independent binary vectors of n components

- Suppose that you have obtained $k < n - 1$ linear independent vectors
- The probability that the next run of the circuit produces a vector that is linear independent of the earlier ones is

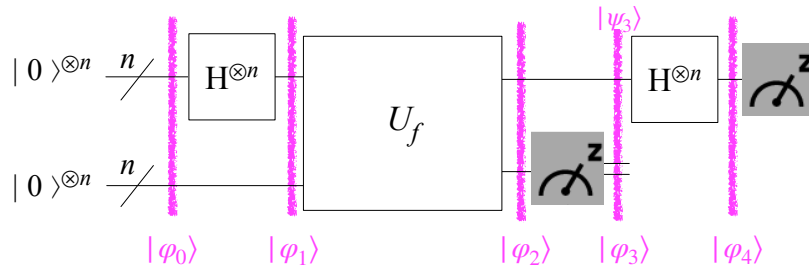
$$\frac{2^{n-1} - 2^k}{2^{n-1}} \geq 1/2$$

- Hence, an expected number of $O(n)$ runs suffices to find $n - 1$ linear independent vectors

Example

$n = 3$

x	$f(x)$
000	101
001	010
010	000
011	110
100	000
101	110
110	101
111	010



$$|\varphi_0\rangle = |000\rangle |000\rangle$$

$$|\varphi_1\rangle = |+\rangle^{\otimes 3} |000\rangle = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{2}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^3} |x\rangle |000\rangle$$

$$|\varphi_2\rangle = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{2}} \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}^3} |x\rangle |f(x)\rangle$$

The second register is measured, collapsing the first register to

$$|\psi_3\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} |z\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} |z \oplus s\rangle$$

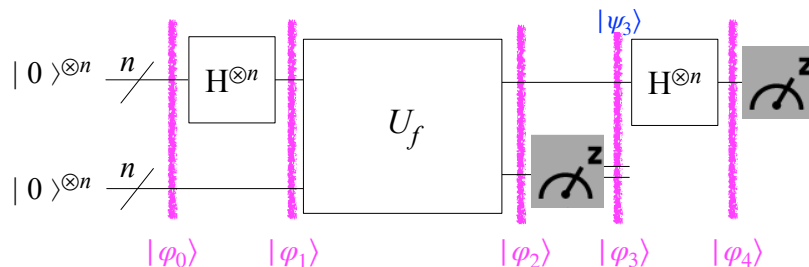
A second Hadamard transform is applied to the first register

$$|\varphi_4\rangle = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{\substack{y \in \{0,1\}^3 \\ s \cdot y = 0}} (-1)^{z \cdot y} |y\rangle$$

Example

$n = 3$

x	$f(x)$
000	101
001	010
010	000
011	110
100	000
101	110
110	101
111	010



$$|\varphi_4\rangle = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{\substack{y \in \{0,1\}^3 \\ s \cdot y = 0}} (-1)^{z \cdot y} |y\rangle$$

First measurement on the first register: 001

Second measurement on the first register: 111

$$\begin{cases} 0s_0 \oplus 0s_1 \oplus 1s_2 = 0 \\ 1s_0 \oplus 1s_1 \oplus 1s_2 = 0 \end{cases} \implies \begin{cases} s_2 = 0 \\ s_0 \oplus s_1 \oplus s_2 = 0 \end{cases}$$

$$\implies \begin{cases} s_2 = 0 \\ s_0 \oplus s_1 = 0 \end{cases}$$

The solutions are $s = 000$ and $s = 110$

Thus, the unique nonzero solution is the period $s = 110$

Appendix: The birthday paradox

- Phenomenon that in a group of just 23 people, there is actually a large probability (about a 50-50 chance) that at least two of them will have the same birthday, despite the fact that the number of possible birthday (365) is much larger than the number of people (23)
- **Intuitive explanation:**
the number of **pairs** of people is actually quadratic in the number of people, and each pair has a 1/365 probability to have the same birthday (assuming birthdays are distributed uniformly random among people)

With 23 people we have **253** pairs

$$\binom{23}{2} = \frac{23 \cdot 22}{2} = 253$$

Assuming birthdays are distributed uniformly random among people, each pair has probability $\frac{1}{365}$ to have the same birthday

The chance of 2 people having different birthdays is

$$1 - \frac{1}{365} = \frac{364}{365} = 0.997260$$

The probability that all **253 pairs** have different birthdays can be approximated assuming that these events are independent, and hence by multiplying their probability together, which gives us

$$\left(\frac{364}{365}\right)^{253} = 0.4995 \quad (49.95\%)$$

(of course, different pairs may overlap and hence are not independent, but the idea works)

Then, the probability of someone sharing a birthday is

$$\approx 1 - \left(\frac{364}{365}\right)^{253} = 0.5005 \quad (50.05\%, \text{ just over half})$$

Birthday paradox: exact formula

To derive the exact formula, we compute the probability of each person having a different birthday, Assuming that birthdays are equally likely to happen on each of the 365 days of the year,

- The probability that **Person 1** does not share his/her birthday with previously analyzed people is **1**
- The probability that **Person 2** has a different birthday than Person 1 is **364/365**, as Person 2 may have any birthday other than the birthday of Person 1.
- Similarly, the probability that **Person 3** has a different birthday than Person 1 and 2 is **363/365**, as Person 3 may have any birthday other than the birthdays of Persons 1 and 2
- This analysis continues until **Person 23** is reached, whose probability of not sharing their birthday with people analyzed before, is **(365-22)/365 = 343/365**
- The probability of all 23 people having different birthdays is therefore

$$\frac{364 \cdot 363 \cdot \dots \cdot 343}{365^{22}} = \frac{364!}{342! 365^{22}} = 0.492703$$

- Since the event of at least two of the 23 persons having the same birthday is complementary to all n birthdays being different, its probability is

$$1 - 0.492703 = 0.507297 \quad (50.7297\%)$$